

6-year statistical analysis of cloud occurrence and its physical properties using ACTRIS-CCRES remote sensing data

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Abstract.

Understanding climate change relies heavily on grasping the role of cloud radiative effect and its climate feedback. However, these factors pose the greatest uncertainty among atmospheric processes. This uncertainty stems partly from the limited global-scale cloud measurements. To address this gap, our study presents a six-year statistical analysis of cloud coverage and microphysics properties at the ACTRIS-CCRES AGORA observatory in Granada, Spain. Here, we utilized CLOUDNET post-processed data (e.g target classification, liquid water path, droplet effective radius and so on) of remote sensing instruments and microwave radiometer thermodynamic profiles. The analysis focuses on single layer cloud properties comparison for liquid, ice, mixed phase, liquid with rain, and mixed phase with rain clouds. Therefore, a distinct seasonal pattern in cloud occurrence was observed. During the summer (June-August), single layer clouds occurrence is less than 10%, and precipitation is absent. Conversely, cloud occurrence significantly increases during winter (December-February) and spring (March-May), where Ice and mixed phase clouds with rain are the predominant type. Additionally, a negligible presence of liquid clouds with rain were found. Seasonal trends in liquid water content (LWC) and droplet effective radius are unclear for mixed-phase and liquid clouds. Effective radius remains stable year-round, around 5 μm for liquid clouds below 3 km, while for mixed-phase clouds it can vary between 5 and 12 μm , mainly found at 1-2 km and 5-9 km. LWC shows higher values in cold periods and lower in summer, but with significant variability across both cloud types. Same seasonal patterns for ice water content (IWC) in ice and mixed-phase clouds were challenging to identify. Monthly profiles showed little variation, although values tended to rise in summer. Ice clouds typically have effective radius between 20-30 μm at 8-12 km altitude, peaking at 65 μm in summer. Mixed-phase clouds exhibit ice effective radius around 50 μm between 1-7 km altitude. The mean geometric thickness of ice and mixed-phase clouds throughout the seasons is 1.2 ± 1.3 km and 2.0 ± 1.6 km, respectively, contrasting sharply with the 0.2 ± 0.2 km observed in liquid clouds. The monthly variability in thickness is substantial enough to obscure any seasonal differences. Similarly, the analysis of cloud base height reveals mean values of 1.9 ± 2.0 km (excluding summer) for liquid clouds, 4.8 ± 2.2 km for mixed-phase clouds, and 7.0 ± 2.4 km for ice clouds. During summer a different vertical distribution of cloud base was found due to different mechanisms of cloud formation. Conclusively, a statistical analysis was conducted on single-layer cloud properties in the Southeast of Spain, highlighting the mainly cloud type associated with rainfall in the region.

1 Introduction

Clouds are one of the major atmospheric components driving the earth's radiative budget and hydrological cycle variability. Since they roughly cover 2/3 of the Earth's surface ?, their physical properties play an important role in climate feedbacks such as surface temperature change rate. In particular, clouds are responsible for precipitation patterns and can contribute to increased surface temperature by trapping thermal radiation in the atmosphere ?. Given that, raised temperatures and water shortage accounts for more severe drought stress in mediterranean regions ?? In addition, the fifth assessment report ? suggests the Mediterranean basin will suffer a reduction of precipitation ?? In general, this area is known for experiencing frequent severe weather events and significant climate variability ??, being of particular scientific and societal interest. However, surface temperature feedback due cloud radiative effect is still poorly understood ?. Moreover, further projections using GCMs (global climate models) are still challenging due to the difficulty in partitioning liquid and ice content for mixed phase clouds ?. Particularly, assimilation of cloud types with precipitation showed the importance of ice process in driving precipitation for warm clouds Bühl et al. (2016); ?. From this perspective, measurements of cloud doppler radar can be used to retrieve droplets and ice microphysics properties such as effective radius, liquid water (LWC) content and ice water content (IWC) ??? In combination with a ceilometer, they can also determine cloud boundaries, i.e. base and tops. Thus, in order to understand seasonal trends on cloud occurrence and their physical properties, long-term measurements of remote sensing instruments are necessary. Therefore, a statistical description of cloud type occurrences in southeast Spain using passive and active remote sensing measurements to comprehend cloud and precipitation patterns in the Mediterranean basin was achieved.

The presented study used more than half a decade of Cloudnet post-processed data ? and microwave radiometer profiles at the Spanish AGORA-CCRES station (Andalusian Global ObseRvatory of the Atmosphere - Centre of Cloud Remote Sensing). The AGORA station has been a part of the Cloudnet since yearXXX, and was integrated into ACTRIS CCRES in yearXXX as its new facility. Their products have been continuously determined using a synergistic approach of cloud observations using a 94-GHz doppler radar, with multiple scanning capabilities, a microwave radiometer and a CHM15k ceilometer. Here, Cloudnet target classification is employed to cloud type classification as ??. This product also allowed the partitioning of retrieved droplets and ice microphysical properties within each cloud type. Thus, an inter-annual statistical analysis on cloud occurrence and microphysical properties is presented.

Cloudnet products have been explored in many recent studies. ? used this dataset at German Alps to analyze cloud variability at a particular high-altitude location. ? studied data from the Leipzig observatory LACROS (Leipzig Aerosol and Cloud Remote Observations System), to evaluate ice process for mixed phase clouds. ?? focused their study on cloud statistics properties for different types of clouds in the Arctic and the Bucharest-Magurele site, respectively. Differently from the previously cited studies, our station has particularly thermodynamic conditions, with elevated temperatures and less humidity. Besides that, we also described microphysical properties for different cloud types, which can be extremely useful for feeding radiative transfer

models in order to estimate cloud radiative effects. ? and ? used microphysics estimation from XXX and XXX to perform numerical estimation of cloud radiative effect using the libRadtran tool.

60 The paper is organized as follows. Sec ?? describes the dataset and the methods used for cloud classification. Sec ?? first describes the cloud correlation with thermodynamic conditions and then evaluates the inter-annual cloud properties variability. Finally, SecXXX presents the concluding remarks and contextualize the main findings within the climate research topic.

2 Data and Methods

2.1 Site and database

65 An extensive dataset ranging the years 2018 to 2023 was used. In particular, Cloudnet (Illingworth et al., 2007) post-processed high level data and microwave radiometer humidity and temperature profiles. Concerning the 6 years of cloudnet dataset, Figure 1 shows the monthly data availability. These products were inferred by measurements carried out with a set of ground-based remote sensing instruments - managed at the ACTRIS-CCRES Granada site facility (CCRES stands for Centre for Cloud Remote Sensing) at 37°2E, 3.6°S and 680 m. This station is as part of the University of Granada (UGR) and it is integrated into
70 the AGORA observatory. It is located within a broad intramontane depression in the foothills of the tallest mountain massif of the Iberian Peninsula, Sierra Nevada.

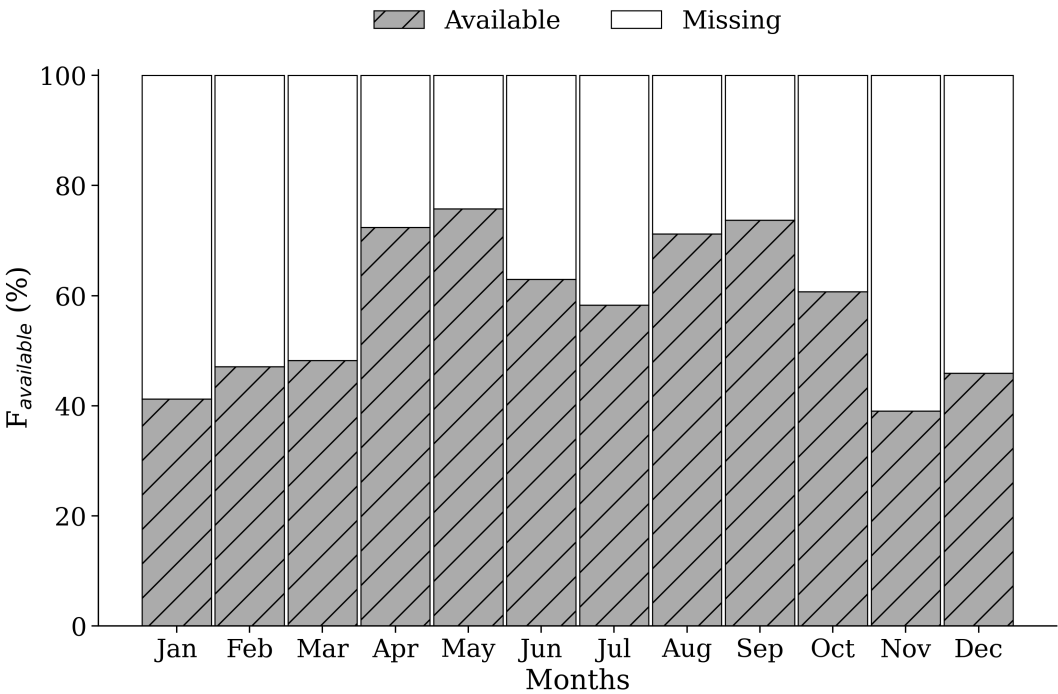


Figure 1. ...

The Cloudnet processed data was determined by a synergy between a RPG-HATPRO radiometer, a CHM15k ceilometer, a RPG-FMCW 94 GHz cloud Doppler radar and the European model ECMWF (an acronym for European Centre for Medium-Range Weather Forecasts). These instruments have been continuously operated since 2018, and their data has been processed by the CloudnetPy (Illingworth et al., 2007), performing reflectivity attenuation correction, error estimation and quality flag assignment. Particularly, attenuation corrections assists in prevention misclassification of atmospheric elements through liquid water content (LWC) estimation. This variable is obtained by cloud boundaries provided by lidar and radar synergy, and microwave radiometer liquid water path (LWP) ?. Thus, uncertainties retrieving LWC during a raining event can be high enough to frustrate attenuation corrections.

CLOUDNET processed data were sampled in a common grid with time resolution of 30 s, and height bins according to cloud radar range resolution, which differ according to radar chirp table configuration. This resolution vary with altitude and underwent some changes throughout the measurement period. Consequently, to ensure consistency in vertical resolution of the data, a regridding process was implemented to facilitate monthly statistical analysis when needed. The regridding consisted to change altitude resolution to 60 m. Table 1 associate bin sizes with their respective height intervals. This table also gives operational information of instruments at Granada site and their main post-processed variables. Differently, microwave radiometer humidity and temperature profiles were not processed by CloudnetPy, but were provided by its own manufacturing software. High level data included in the analysis were target classification, liquid water path (LWP) ice water path (IWP), droplet effective radius, and ice effective radius, where target classification apportioned to classify cloud layers as explained in section 2.3. The classification method was adapted from Pırloagă et al. (2022) and Nomokonova et al. (2019).

Table 1. This is a sample table caption and table layout.

Instrument	Height resolution (heigh interval) (m)	Integration time (s)	Variables
FMCW 94 GHz Cloud Doppler Radar	14.9 (100-1200), 13.5 (1200-4400), 15.5 (4400-10000)	1.10	Mean Doppler vellocity (m/s) Reflectivity (dBz) Linear depolarisation ratio (dB) Spectral width (m/s)
	22.4 (100-924), 25.6 (924-8455), 39.7 (8455-12000)	3.2	
	29.8 (100-1200), 29.8 (1200-4900), 29.8 (4900-8500), 51.1 (8500-13500)	3.57	
	29.8 (100-1200), 33.3 (1200-5500), 34.1 (5500-11000)	3.26	
	36 (180-1476), 12.8 (1476-3998), 12.8 (3998-8158), 12.8 (8158-1200)	2.81	
MWR RPG HATPRO	200 (0-2000), 400 (2000-5000), 800 (5000-10000)	10	Humidity profiles (g m^{-3})
	50 (0-1200), 200 (1200-5000), 400 (5000-10000)	10	Temperature profiles (K)
	–	2	LWP, IWP (kg m^{-2})
CHM15k Nimbus Ceilometer (1064 nm)	15	15	Attenuated backscatter coefficient ($\text{sr}^{-1} \text{ m}^{-1}$)

90 2.2 Cloudnet particle classification scheme

Target classification product assigns an integer ranging from 0 to 10 at each pixel in the Cloudnet processed grid. Each number are related to atmospheric elements in the following order: clear sky, droplets, drizzle or rain, drizzle & droplets, ice, ice & droplets, melting ice, melting & droplets, aerosol, insects, aerosol & insect. These targets were determined through radar and lidar variables in combination with thermodynamic profiles from the ECMWF model. In particular, wet bulb temperature (T_w) profiles is used to establish warm and cold regions to classify liquid and ice hydrometeors. Further, liquid droplets boundaries were resolved with lidar attenuated backscatter coefficient (β), and radar reflectivity. The first is sensible to small liquid droplets present in cloud base, as the second are able to penetrate the cloud and detect cloud tops. In addition, liquid layers respect a threshold of $T_w < -40$ °C, since it is not possible to keep water in liquid phase bellow that temperature. Hence, liquid droplets assigned as falling were classified as drizzle or rain droplets, where falling is attributed through radar echos analysis once particles boundary were already determined. Therefore, falling cold particle were just classified as ice, without distinguishing ice from precipitating ice. Next, melting layers were identified at the height of maximum wet bulb temperature divergence. Pixels with divergence surpassing 0.0075 s^{-1} within 150 m of height deviation were also classified as "melting". Furthermore, more than one class of particle can be settled in the same pixel, allowing the identification of mixed phase hydrometeors, like ice coexisting with supercooled liquid droplets and melting ice particles coexisting with cloud liquid droplets. A more detailed description of particle apportionment of Cloudnet algorithm can be found on Hogan and O'connor (2004).

2.3 Assortment algorithm

The assortment algorithm classifies groups of hydrometeors and cloud layers. In terms of hydrometeors, this algorithm generate masks of hydrometeor occurrence for 3 groups: liquid, ice and "total", where liquid class encompass all possible liquid pixels, which are "droplets", "drizzle or rain" and "drizzle & droplets". Ice encompass only "ice" pixels, and total is all possible hydrometeors, which are "droplets", "drizzle or rain", "drizzle & droplets", "ice", "ice & droplets", "melting ice" and "melting & droplets".

Subsequently, cloud layers in atmospheric column were classified trough pixel sequence inquiry. These pixels sequences were divided in the following 5 groups according to Pîrloagă et al. (2022): liquid, ice, mixed phase, liquid with precipitation and mixed phase with precipitation. Specifically, liquid clouds were assigned as any combination of "droplets" and "drizzle & droplets" pixels. Ice clouds were assigned when only "ice" pixel sequence was encountered. As well as, mixed phase clouds were assigned with any combination of "droplets", "ice", "ice & droplets", "melting ice", "melting & droplets", "drizzle and droplets" pixels. Precipitation cases were classified whether at least one pixel of "drizzle or rain" is found below liquid and mixed phase clouds. Different from previous studies, a threshold of 20 bins (256-1022 m) bellow cloud was set to reject precipitation events, assuming that rain droplets are not falling from the actual cloud layer. In all cases, for being considered a cloud layer, a minimum sequence of 3 cloud pixels (38-153 m) (Nomokonova et al., 2019) must be satisfied, in addition to a minimum sequence of 5 pixels (64-255 m) of "Clear sky", "Aerosol", "Insect" and "Aerosol & insect" to separate multi-layers. Therefore, free hydrometeor layers in the neighbourhood of the cloud allowed the identification of cloud base and

top. Nevertheless, thresholds here were based on Pîrloagă et al. (2022); Nomokonova et al. (2019), but these values are not currently well defined, their determination has been guided by empirical experience.

125 3 Results and discussion

3.1 Thermodynamic influences on cloud frequency

It is widely recognized that thermodynamic conditions can affect cloud formation (?). In order to relate both, this section makes a comparison between monthly thermodynamic profiles and different hydrometeors and cloud type occurrence.

Temperature and humidity profiles used as baselines were those collected during clear sky condition, and are shown in Figure 2. This figure can easily identify cold and warm regimes, where cold regimes spans between winter and spring, while warm regimes spans between summer and autumn. This annual variability was also observed by Pîrloagă et al. (2022); Nomokonova et al. (2019), however, higher temperature values experienced by our station is only closely resembling those reported by Pîrloagă et al. (2022), as both stations are geographic located in warm regions. In our case, average surface temperature is $25.2 \pm 5.5 \text{ }^{\circ}\text{C}$ in summer, by contrast with $17.4 \pm 6.5 \text{ }^{\circ}\text{C}$ in winter. For monthly average surface relative humidity, values appear slightly higher than those documented by Nomokonova et al. (2019), with $50 \pm 21\%$ in summer and $64 \pm 17\%$ in winter.

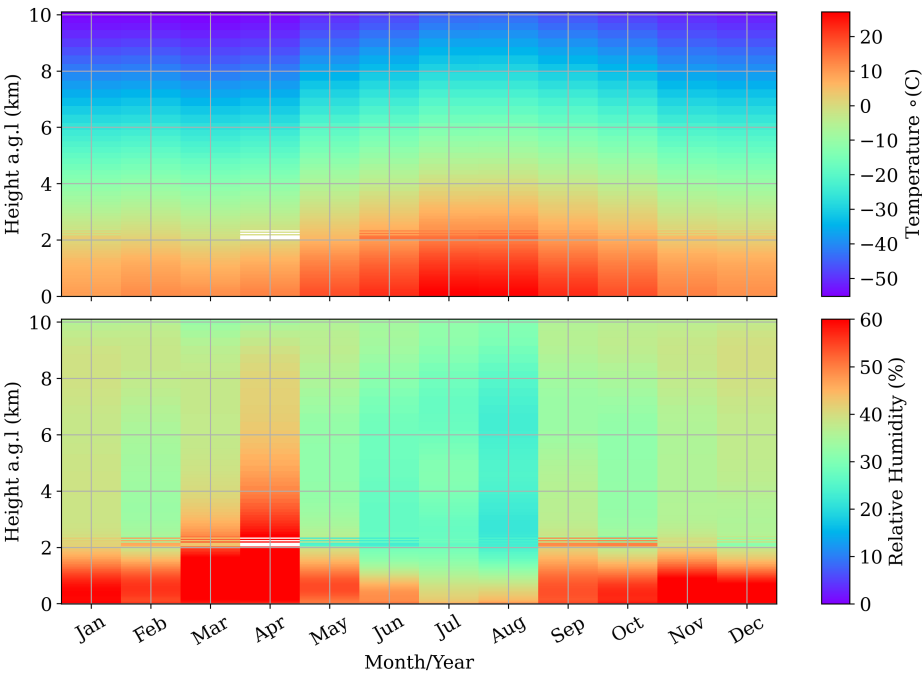


Figure 2. Montlhy evolution of average temperature and humidity profiles obtained with the microwave radiometer.

Following this, hydrometeor formation and consequently, cloud formation will be directly affected by thermodynamic conditions in these regimes. For tracking this changes on clouds, a first approach on monthly hydrometeors occurrence is depicted in Figure 3. Regarding the 6-year CLOUDNET post-processed database, this figure shows the monthly frequency profiles of liquid (top panel) and ice (middle panel) hydrometeors. The lowest panel also displays their corresponding monthly frequency of occurrence, assigning one occurrence per profile if at least one hydrometeor was detected in that profile. In addition, right panels shows the frequency profiles through the entire dataset for each season.

Notably, monthly evolution of ice and liquid hydrometeors keeps aligned with temperature and relative humidity profiles. For both cases, higher frequencies were encountered in the end of cold regimes (November) and during warm regimes (Dec-May). Where we can easily find frequencies ranging 20% for liquid and 15% for ice. Also, a prominent minimum occurred exactly in summer, which can be better visualized in the right panels of Figure 3. These seasonal profiles showed an increase for the liquid case from summer to winter, and for the ice case, an increase from summer to fall, keeps almost the same in winter, and reach a maximum in spring. This feature is strong for the liquid case, where there is no difference between winter and spring. Also relevant frequencies for this case is below 2 km. On the contrary, middle panel of Figure 3 shows that ice particles have a spread distribution on the vertical, overcoming 10 km with slight maxima in 2 km and 8 km.

Therefore, by converting hydrometeors into cloud types using the cloud classification algorithm (refer to section 2.3), monthly frequency of single-layer clouds occurrence was obtained as depicted in Figure 4). Indeed, all subsequent analyses focus on single-layer clouds, as the CLOUDNET target classification product can be highly inaccurate in multilayer cases due to errors in LWP partitioning (Nomokonova et al., 2019). In this scenario, Figure 4) shows a predominant presence of precipitating mixed-phase clouds (Indicated as Pre-Mixed-Phase). Alternatively, almost no precipitating due to liquid clouds was observed, just a slight maximum of 5% in the transition period between fall and winter. Next, ice clouds are the second most present cloud type, followed by mixed-phase clouds and liquid clouds. However, the presence of precipitating mixed-phase clouds are significantly higher than other cloud types, with a substantially stronger seasonal pattern. Its maximum frequency coincides with the cold regimes, in winter and spring, where their frequency reaches 25% and 30%, respectively. Evidently, its minimum occurs in summer (June - August), when temperature is high and relative humidity is much lower. Also, ice clouds prevailed during this season and no significant liquid precipitation was registered.

Next, seasonal evolution of cloud thickness (ΔZ), base and top heights are displayed in Figure 5. In relation to cloud thickness, mixed-phase and precipitable mixed phase clouds exhibit the largest and most variable values, followed by ice, precipitating liquid clouds and liquid clouds. A notably broader distribution for precipitable mixed-phase clouds were observed in summer, with a median of 3 [0.6 to 5.1] km. Where values in brackets represents the 25th and 75th percentiles, which demonstrate a greater uncertainty for this variable. Moreover, in this season, these clouds have less than 4% of occurrence (refers to figure 4). Throughout the remainder seasons, median cloud thickness for precipitable mixed-phase clouds are raging from 1 to 1.4 km. Alternatively, for the entire period, non-precipitable mixed-phase clouds range from 1.4 to 1.7 km, Ice clouds from 0.7 to 0.9 km, precipitable liquid clouds from 0.27 to 0.8 km, and liquid clouds, from 0.18 to 0.2 km. In general, cloud-thickness distribution is skewed toward large thickness throughout all season, and the mode is consistently smaller than the median. Additionally, there is no evident seasonal pattern for this parameter due to its considerable variability.

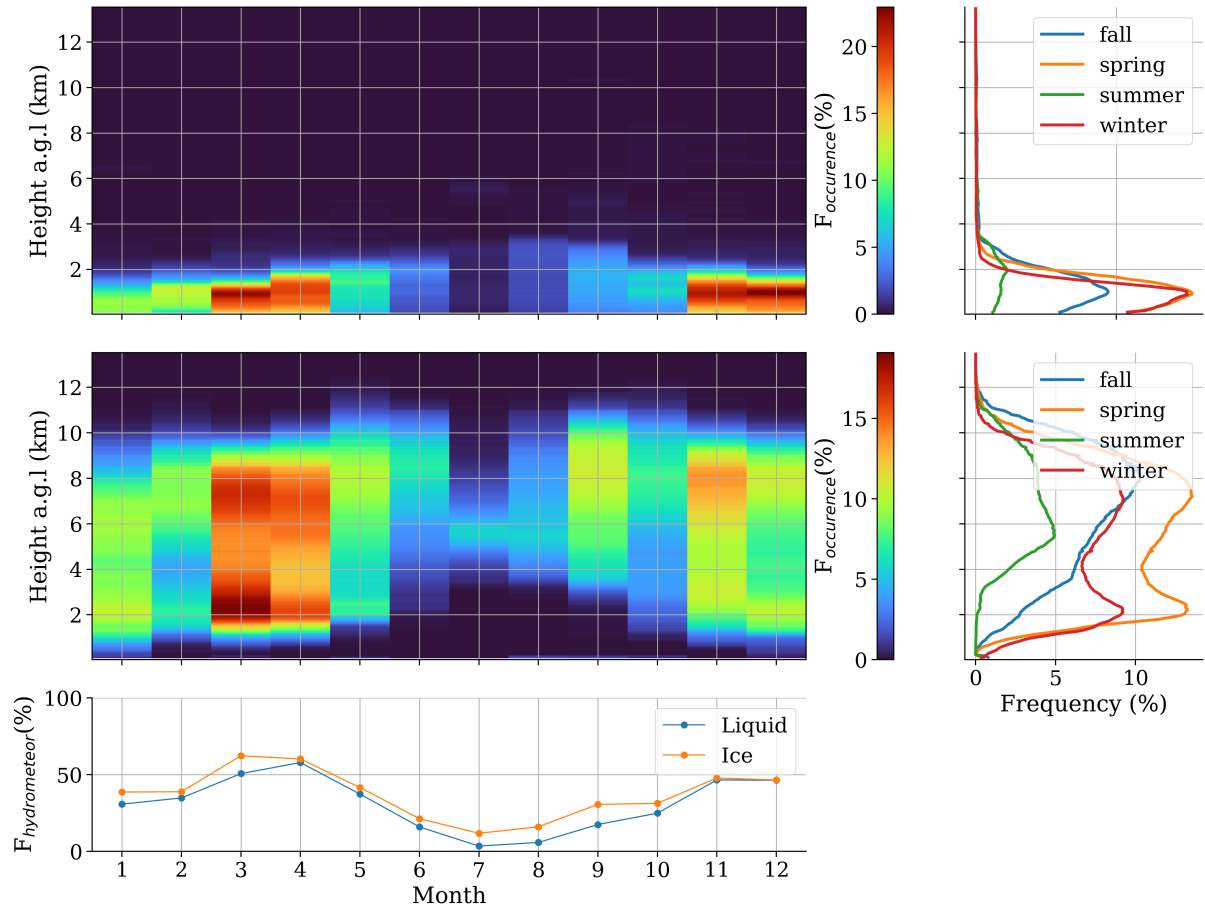


Figure 3. ...

Subsequently, middle panel of figure 5 shows that ice clouds have the highest cloud base height, followed by mixed-phase, precipitable mixed phase, and both liquid clouds, precipitable and non-precipitable. In summer, cloud base distribution experiences the most pronounced alterations. For instance, liquid clouds exhibited a wider and higher spread distribution, with a median height of 3 [1.8 to 4.9] km. In contrast, their median ranged from 1.4 - 1.8 km for the remaining period. In relation to mixed-phase clouds, its base height distribution becomes sharper in summer, with a median height of 5.2 [4.6 to 6.0] km, practically the same of fall, at 5.4 [4.0 to 7] km. For the rest of the seasons, their median height is approximately 1 km lower, between 3.7 and 4.0 km. Moreover, precipitable mixed-phase cloud base are significantly higher in summer, with a median height of 3 [1.8 to 4.9] km, in contrast with the remaining seasons, varying between 1.2 - 1.9 km. Precipitable liquid clouds also presented a higher and broader cloud base in summer, with a median height of 1.7 [1.8 to 4.9] km, about 1 km higher than other seasons, which fluctuates between 0.7 to 1.2 km. For ice clouds, despite they exhibiting a higher median cloud base in fall, during summer, an uncommon mode in comparison with other seasons is observed at 5 km - indeed, this is also observed

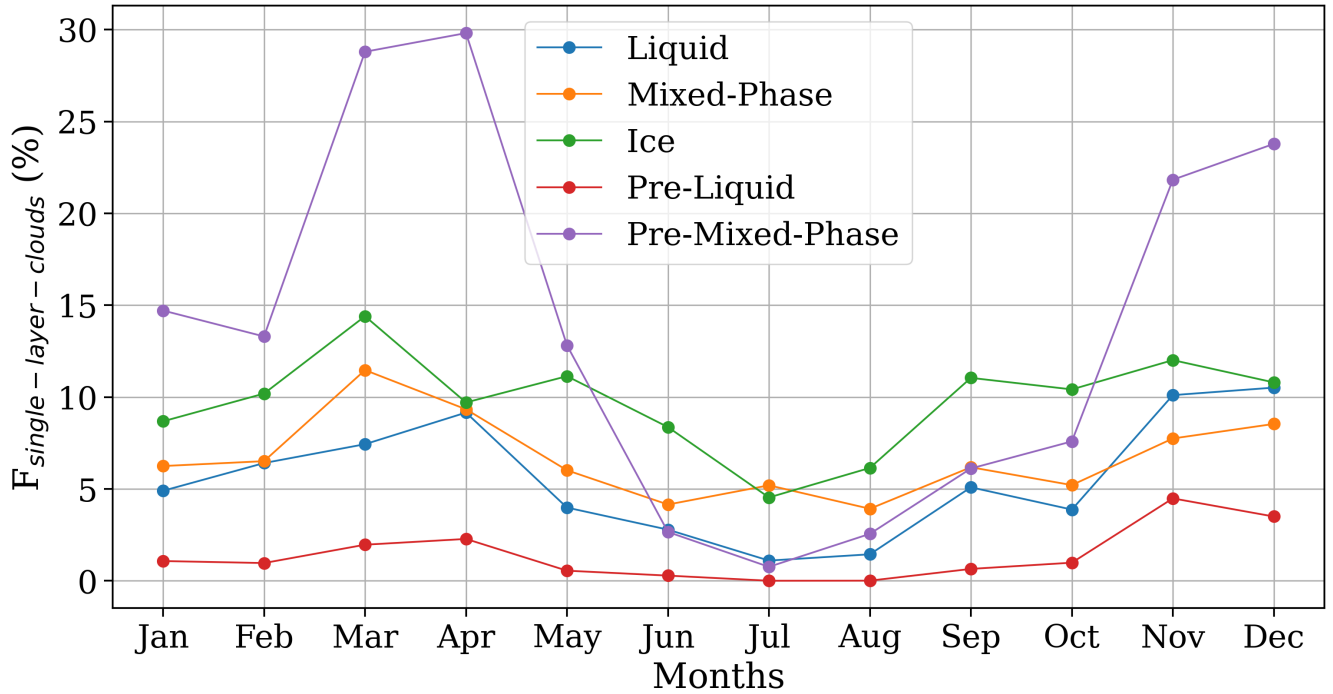


Figure 4.

for liquid and mixed-phase clouds. During fall, ice cloud base height exhibits a median value of 8.1 km [6.7 to 9.3] km, also 1 km higher than other seasons, quite well stable in 7.0 km.

Bottom panel of Figure 5 shows a similar seasonal pattern for cloud top height, where the main differences was observed in summer. Particularly, for precipitable mixed-phase clouds, cloud top height have substantially greater variation than cloud base height, with skewed distributions toward large heights. Evidently, this variability reflects in clouds thickness as previously observed. Thus, cloud thickness is directly affected by cloud top measurements in precipitable clouds. Since the CDR reflectivity experienced greater attenuation in this case, cloud top height could be underestimated at some cases, leading to the observed variations. For these clouds, median cloud height, normally encountered between 2.3 - 3.7 km, were found in 6.2 [3.4 to 8.4] km in summer. Similarly, precipitable liquid clouds which has a median top height around 1.4 - 1.7 km, reached at 2.2 [2.0 to 2.6] km in summer. Alternatively, ice and mixed-phase clouds reached a maximum median height in fall of 9.5 [8.3 to 10.4] km and 8.2 [6.3 to 9.6] km, respectively. For the rest of period, their median top height stayed between 8.5 - 8.7 km and 6.3 - 6.7, respectively. Subsequently, liquid clouds presented larger top height variability in summer, similar to its cloud base height distribution. During this particular season, their median top height is 2.9 [1.8 to 4.9] km, roughly 1 km higher than other seasons, which are varying from 1.4 - 1.8 km.

In general, cloud base and top height is higher in summer for almost all cloud types, except for ice and mixed-phase clouds, which reach their peak during fall. Despite that these properties showed a seasonality in terms of median values, the interquar-

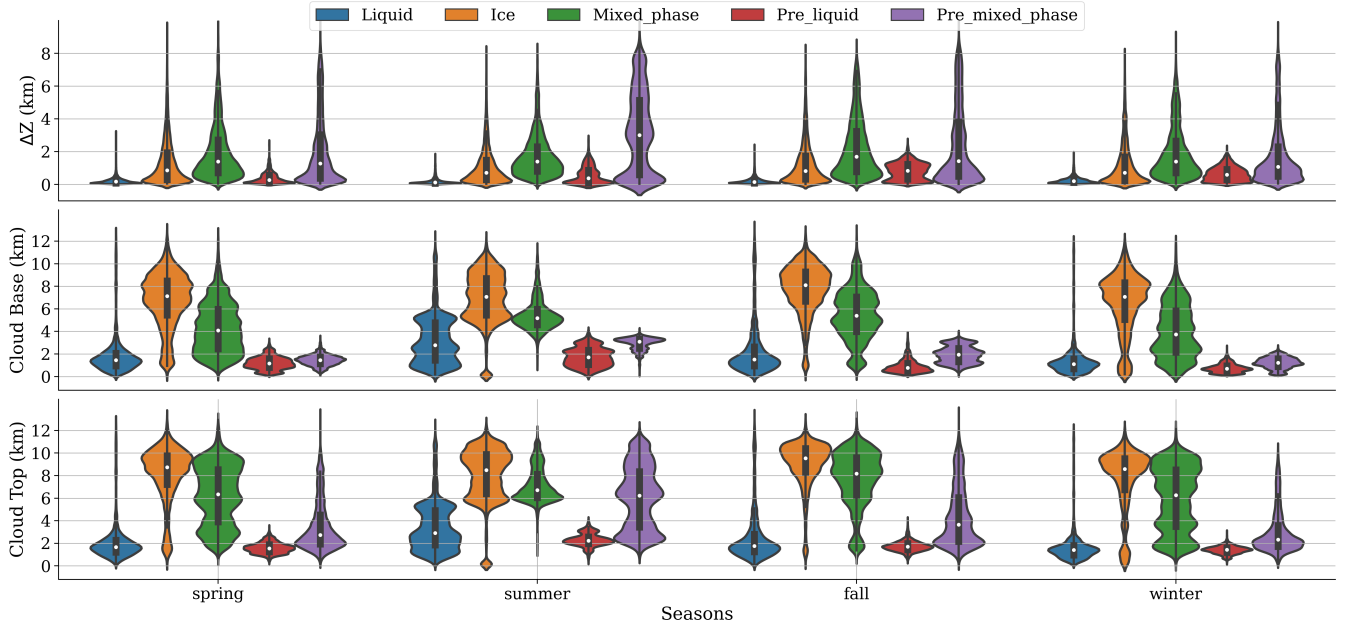


Figure 5.

tile range showed strong variability, especially for ice and mixed-phase clouds. Specifically, precipitable mixed-phase clouds exhibited heightened variability in cloud top height, notably less precise compared to their base height. This suggest a possible underestimation of cloud tops due to radar reflectivity attenuation by rain droplets. Same behaviour would be observed in precipitable liquid clouds, but they are normally thinner and easier to be totally penetrated by the radar signal. Also, these clouds have not enough occurrence to strengthen the statistics of their macrophysical properties, as can be seen in Figure 4.

4 Cloud properties evaluation

4.1 Liquid water content and liquid water path

Monthly and seasonal evolution of liquid water content (LWC) and liquid water path (LWP) for liquid clouds are displayed in Figure 6. Left panel shows the mean seasonal profiles of LWC, and right panel shows the monthly mean profiles of LWC and monthly mean values of LWP (right-bottom panel). Since the monthly median of LWC are zero, indicating a usual water shortage ?, we decided to analyse its average values. First, no significant seasonal variations was observed. Although it was possible to identify maximums about 0.1 g m^{-3} at different levels below 2 km by season, the standard deviation (σ), denoted by the shaded area, showed a strong variability. It is worthy to note that σ was divided by 10 for visualization purpose. In addition, monthly evaluation of LWC on the right panel point out its tremendous variation that passes through several orders of magnitude. This panel shows that relevant values of LWC are below 2.5 km, except in summer, where values roughly decreased

two orders of magnitude and are vertically well distributed. This spacial arrangement is in agreement with cloud base and top
 showed in Figure 5. Also, the presence of small values occur much more frequently than large values, leading to several outliers
 215 which is affecting the mean LWP, as can be seen in the bottom-right panel of figure 6. The mean LWP is denoted by the black
 star, and the median by the box-plot red line. A large discrepancy between this two statistic parameters was observed, except
 in summer where values are all small and there is relatively low cloud liquid profiles, as indicated by the blue lines. In general,
 average LWP stays below 100 g m^{-2} for liquid clouds, with 78% of frequency of occurrence and exhibit a clear seasonal
 pattern, with minimum in summer and maximum in winter-spring. On the other hand, the median does not exhibit a significant
 220 seasonal pattern.

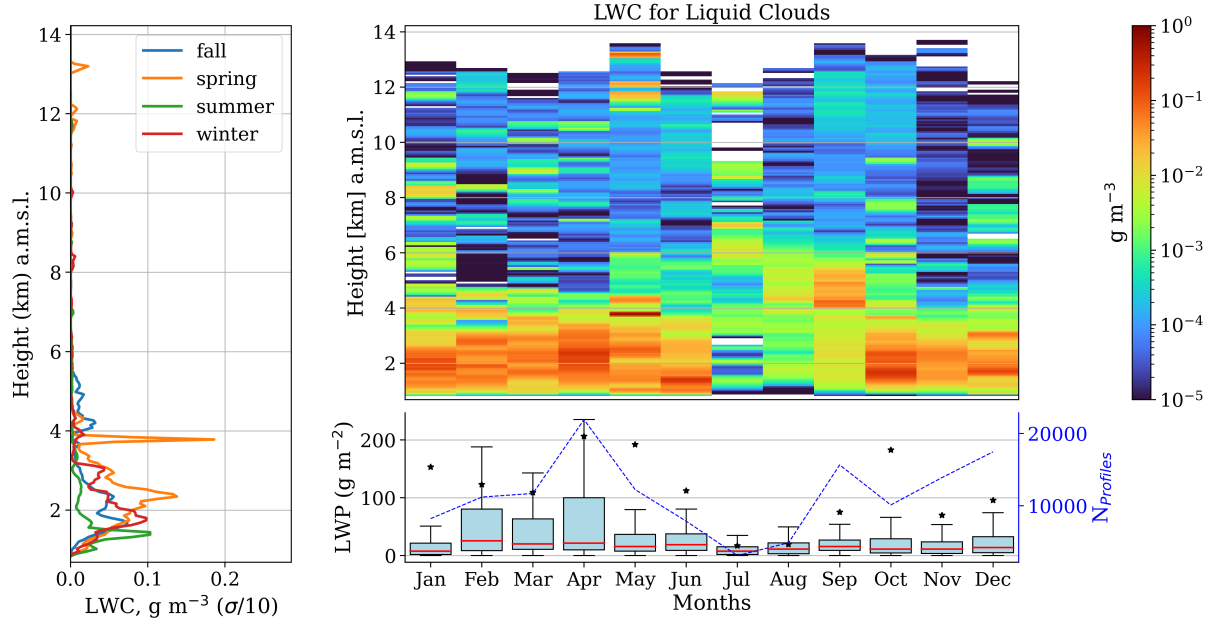


Figure 6. Seasonal average of liquid water content (LWC) and monthly time series of LWC and liquid water path (LWP) for liquid clouds. Left panel shows the seasonal mean profiles of LWC, where shaded area indicates the standard deviation divided by 10. Right panel shows the monthly mean profiles of LWC and monthly boxplot of LWP. Boxplots are showing the median in red and the mean by black stars.

Similar LWC seasonality was observed for precipitable liquid clouds, depicted in Figure 7. Its values are also fluctuating
 trough several orders of magnitude and the largest values still bellow 2.5 km as expected. Different from the liquid case,
 larger values are not well vertically distributed in summer, they still kept within thin layers, although they reached at slight
 higher levels. This is in agreement with vertical position of cloud base and top height (see Figura 5), which does not showed
 a significant vertical variability in summer, in contrast with liquid clouds. In addition, LWC are higher for these clouds, left
 225 panel of Figure 7 shows a maximum about 0.25 g m^{-3} for spring and fall, 0.75 g m^{-3} for winter, both at 1.2 km, and 0.15 g m^{-3}
 in summer, at 2.2 km. In terms of LWP, no seasonality was observed due to the presence of rain droplets, which highly
 increased its value. LWP were not separated between cloud and rain, it is the integrated value reported by the RPG-HATPRO. In

addition, is challenging to evaluate their properties. However, these clouds have relatively less frequency of occurrence (refers to 1), being challenge to analyse.

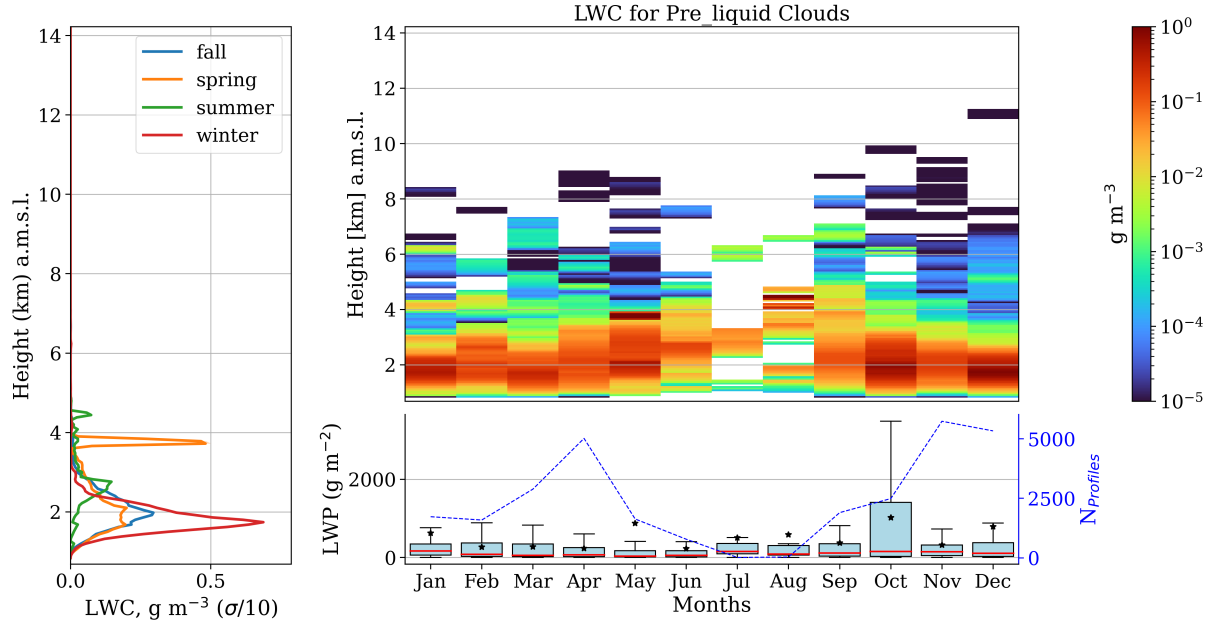


Figure 7. Same as Figure 6, but for precipitable liquid clouds

4.2 Ice water content and Ice water path

Regarding ice water content (IWC), almost the same monthly mean values were found for ice (Figure 10) and mixed phase clouds (Figure 11), in addition to the same mean vertical distribution by season. This outcome was unexpected given our previous demonstration that mixed-phase clouds exhibit higher values of ice water path (IWP) than ice clouds. Consequently, the monthly distribution of IWC appears more asymmetric than that of LWC, as this behavior is not observed for LWC. Consequently, the most probable value of IWC each month significantly differs from the average. Therefore, the monthly average proves to be an inadequate parameter for representing IWC. Moreover, a more accurate portrayal of IWC would entail sharper and higher distributions, as depicted in Figure 5, which cannot be achieved through averaging. Conversely, seasonal patterns can be discerned, with maximums around 0.14 and 0.19 g m^{-3} for ice clouds in cold and warm regimes, respectively.

For mixed-phase clouds, these values are 0.12 and 0.19 g m^{-3} .

Same analyses was done for ice hydrometeors, which can be partitioned between ice and mixed phase clouds. Left panel of Figure ?? also shows same feature between these cloud types, whose explanation is the same as the liquid case. However, IWP for mixed phase cloud is systematically higher than those for ice clouds. Also, its monthly distributions shown in top-right panel of Figure ?? suggests that median values of IWP for ice clouds is within the interval 0-10 g m^{-2} (60% of occurrence). Again, note that in this figure, horizontal grid lines indicate bins of the left side histogram. For mixed phase clouds, IWP median values

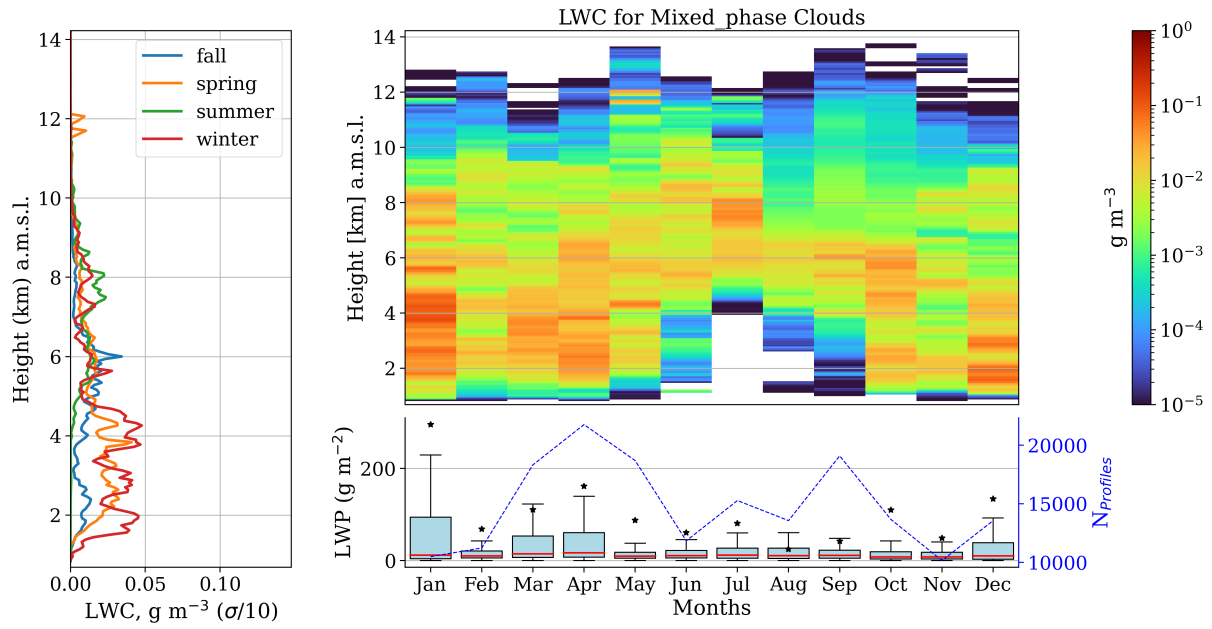


Figure 8.

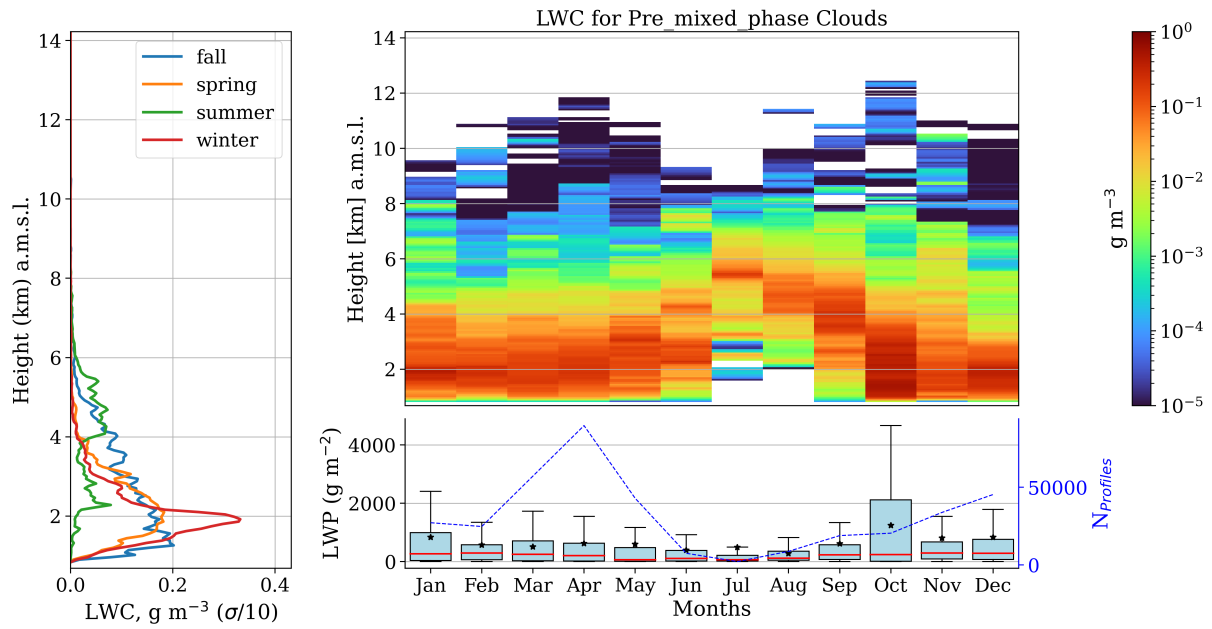


Figure 9.

usually remains within $0\text{--}20\text{ m}^{-2}$, surpassing it only in Aug-Oct. In these months, the median range between $20\text{--}50\text{ g m}^{-2}$, with roughly less than 6% of occurrence. Again, higher values are unlikely and frequency of occurrence decrease exponentially for both cloud type. Additionally, no seasonal pattern was identified and IWP for mixed phase clouds have higher variability compared with ice clouds.

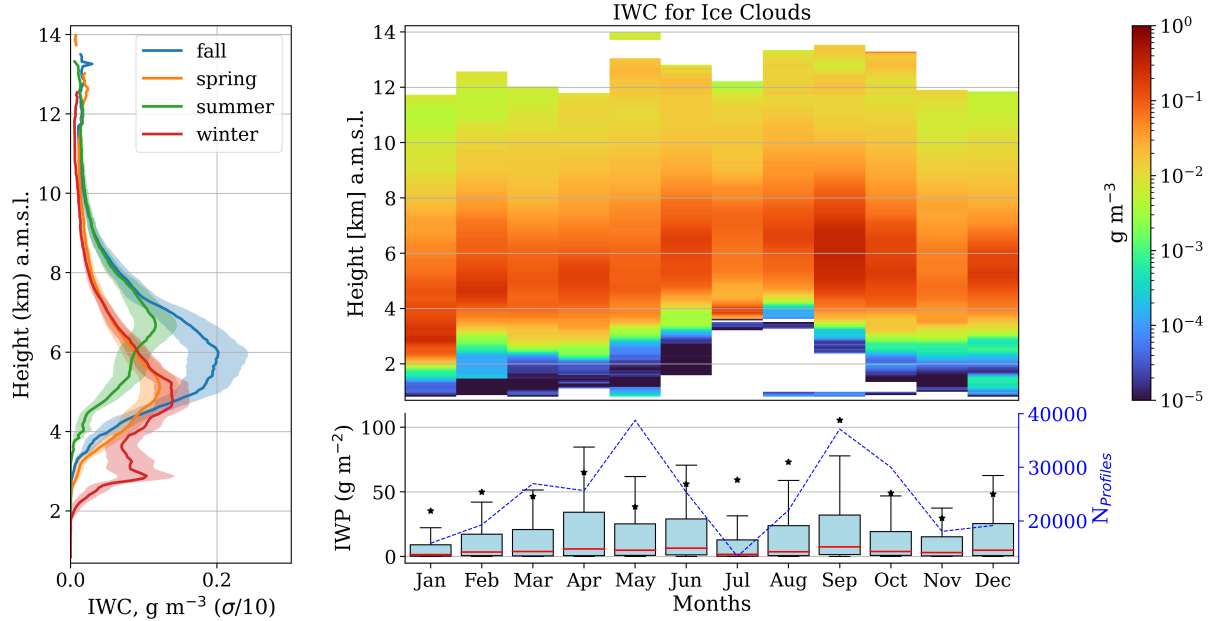


Figure 10.

250 4.3 Droplet effective radius

To compare cloud microphysics between ice and mixed-phase clouds, droplet effective radius of Figure 13 and 15 are presented using the same color scale. Left panel of this figure shows the seasonal vertical distribution of the median droplet effective radius where shaded area represents the 25 and 75 percentiles. Right top panel shows the monthly vertical distribution of the median, and bottom panel shows the median (solid line) and the distribution of R_{eff} by month. Additionally, this panel has
255 second y axis with the number of profiles used each month to compute the medians on the above panel. In the case of liquid clouds, the left panel of Figure 13.a indicates no significant seasonal differences, with values ranging from $5\text{ to }8\text{ }\mu\text{m}$. Monthly distribution of R_{eff} (right-top panel of figure 13) show higher values in light blue tones, approximately around $10\text{ }\mu\text{m}$ between 6 and 8 km altitude, and only a few layers displaying green tones, indicating particles with a size of $15\text{ }\mu\text{m}$. Additionally, monthly examination of violin plots of R_{eff} in the bottom panel demonstrates variations in medians and modes between 4.5
260 and $6.5\text{ }\mu\text{m}$, corresponding to the dark blue tones below 4 km altitude in the above panel, consistent with the presence of large values of LWC in Figure 6

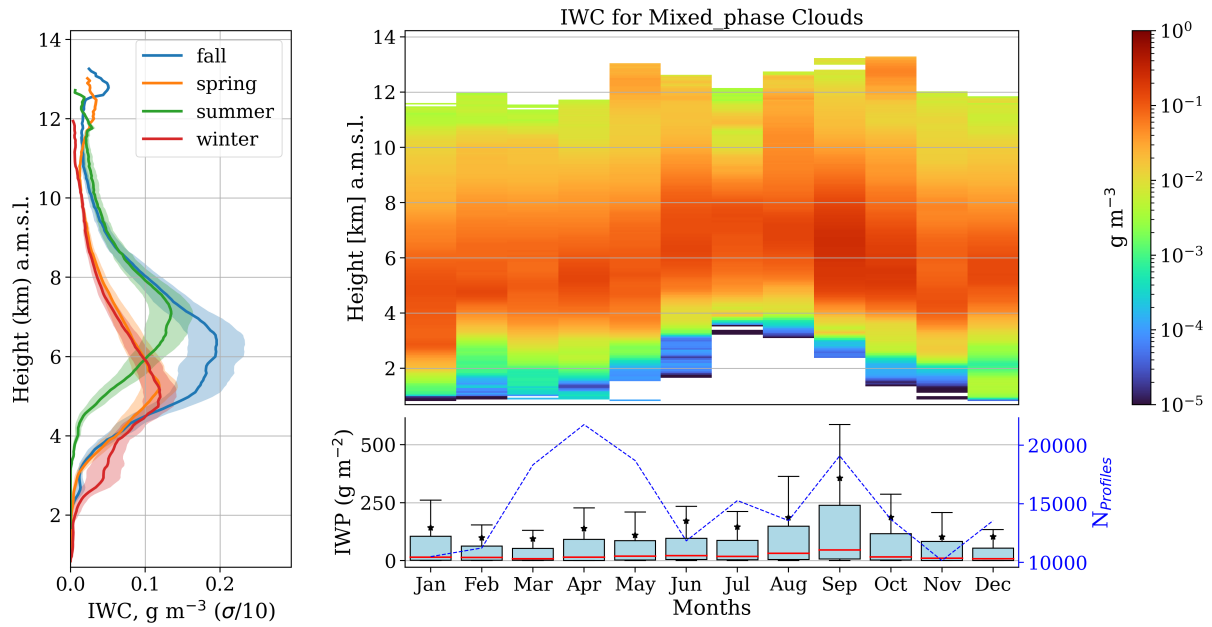


Figure 11.

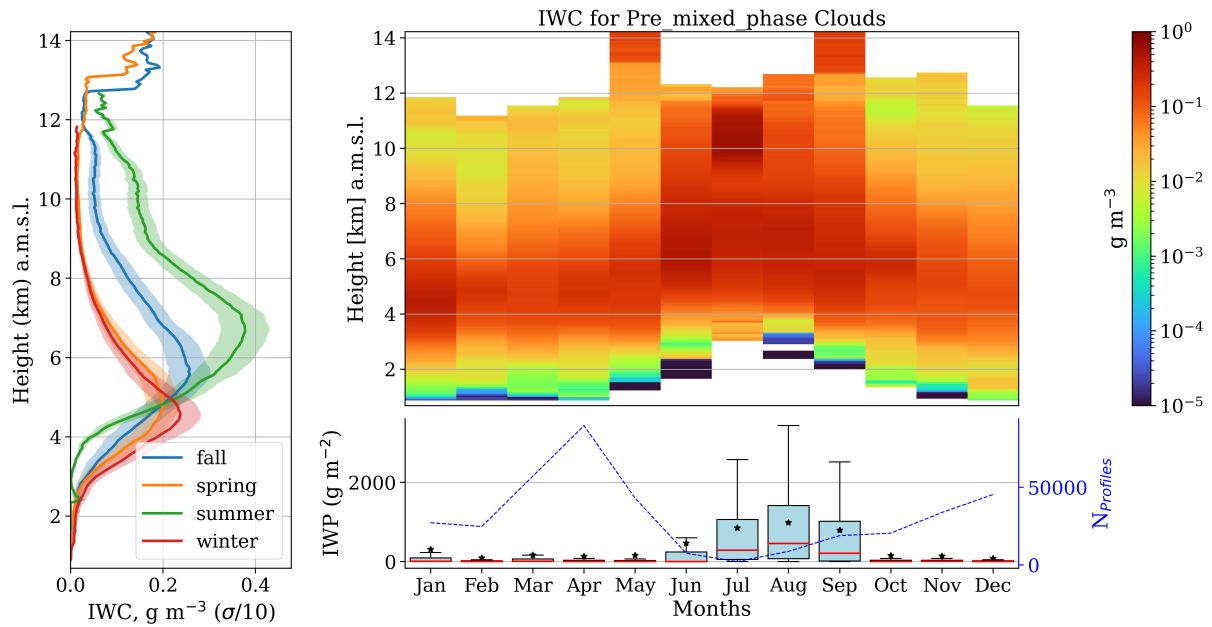


Figure 12.

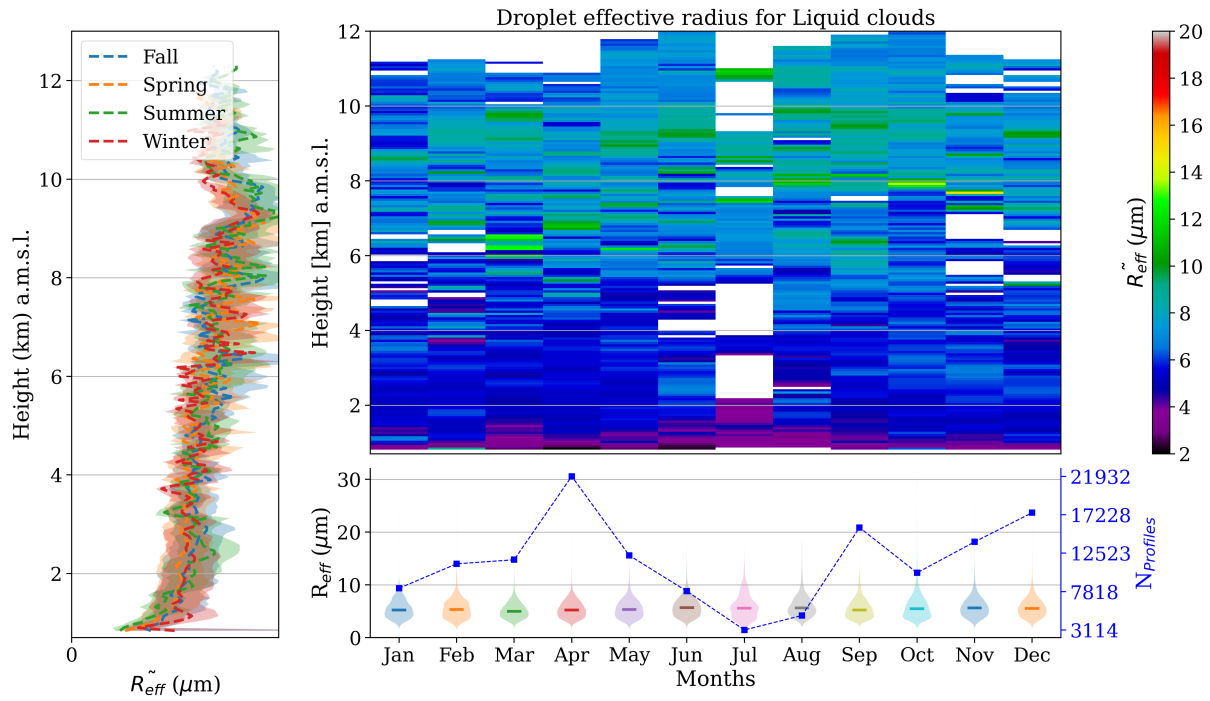


Figure 13.

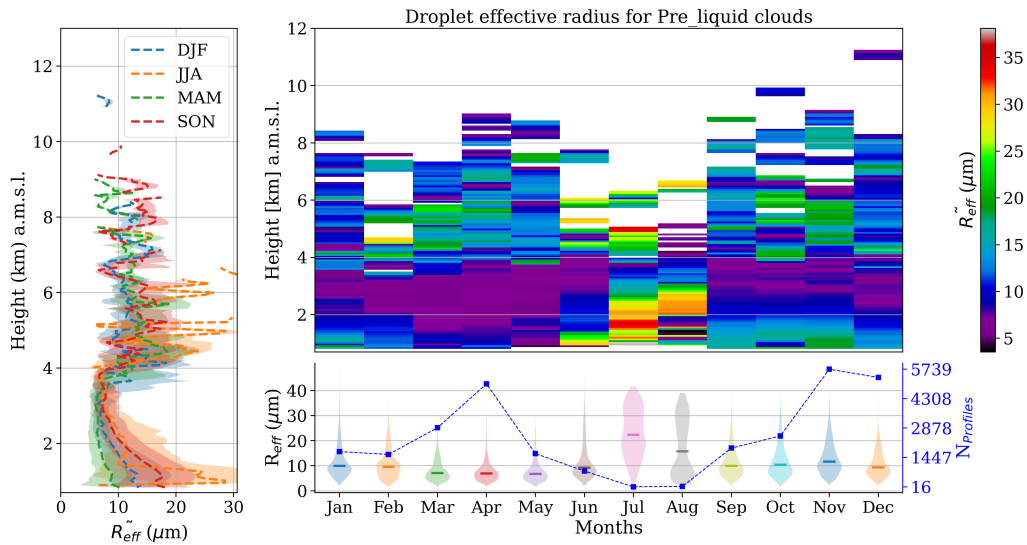


Figure 14.

Concerning mixed-phase clouds, Figure 15 presents a clearer monthly distribution. Although the left panel indicates higher values for liquid droplet radius compared to liquid clouds, no significant seasonal differences were observed. However, it is evident that higher values are encountered between 4 and 6 km of altitude, and they could vary between 13 and 30 μm with peaks during summer (as observed in the top-right panel). Additionally, the violin plots (bottom-right panel) illustrate a higher probability of reaching higher values of R_{eff} during summer. Nevertheless, it's noteworthy that particularly for colder periods (December to May), the median and mode of R_{eff} are approximately 12 and 5 μm , respectively. These values correspond to a range of colors from dark blue to light green in the above panel, predominantly found below 4 km and between 6.5-10 km altitude.

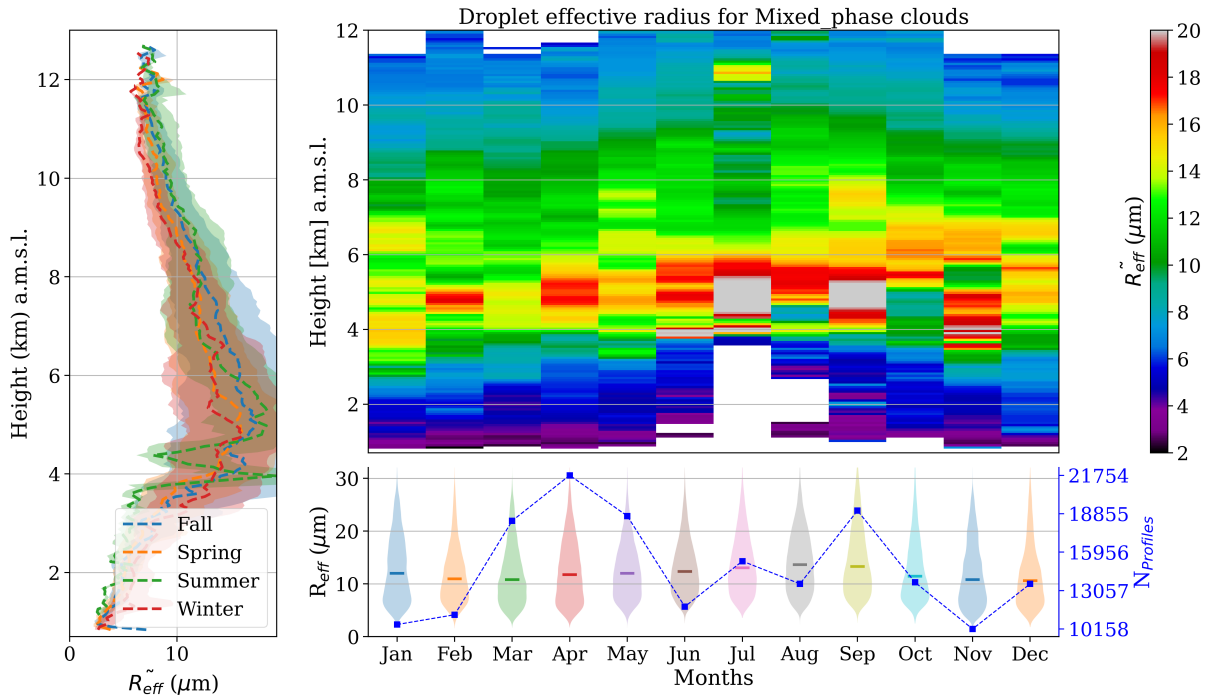


Figure 15.

270 4.4 Ice effective radius

Repeatedly, the left panel of Figure 17 shows no significant seasonal variations in the median ice effective radius for ice clouds. However, higher values of effective radius were notably observed during summer (June-August), reaching up to 65 μm (as shown in the top-right panel). This aligns with the distribution of summer R_{eff} depicted in the bottom-right panel, where median values exceed 40 μm in July and August. Additionally, these months exhibit sharper distributions of R_{eff} . Overall, the R_{eff} fluctuates around 35 μm for other seasons, with modes around 20 and 30 μm . This corresponds to colors ranging from light blue to green tones in the above panel, indicating that the most common R_{eff} for ice clouds is typically situated between

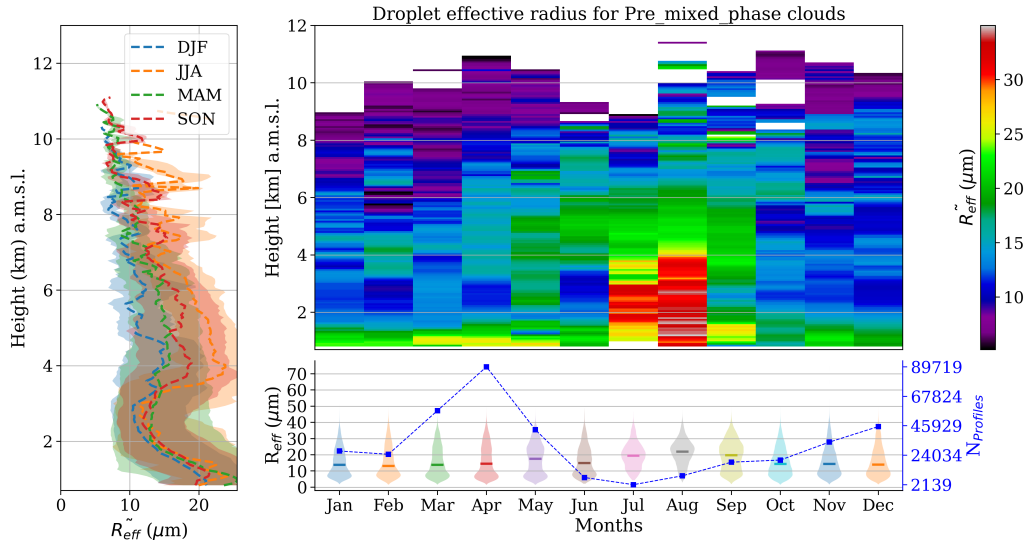


Figure 16.

8 and 12 km altitude (above mean sea level), likely associated with cirrus clouds. Conversely, while higher R_{eff} values may be found in low to middle levels, their probability of occurrence is minimal, as evidenced by the small tails of each distribution extending beyond 60 μm .

280 On the other hand, the median vertical distribution of R_{eff} for mixed phase clouds (left panel of figure 18) exhibits a significant difference between cold (winter-spring) and hot periods (summer-fall) between 8 - 11 km. In addition, summer presented high R_{eff} within 2-4 km, which is also observed in the monthly vertical distribution on the right-top panel. However, no clear differences between these months were observed in the monthly distribution of R_{eff} in the right-bottom panel, except that July has a slight sharper distribution. This panel also shows that median values are normally ranging around 45 μm . It
 285 is worth to note that differently from previous cases, the modes are above the median, ranging around 50 μm . Therefore, the most probable R_{eff} in the above panel corresponds to the band around the yellow tone, i.e. approximately between 2 to 8 km. During summer this layer is moved upwards as also seen for ice clouds.

In summary, liquid clouds exhibit slight larger integrated water path (LWP) compared to mixed-phase clouds, with typical values ranging between 0 and 20 g m^{-2} for both, occasionally exceeding 40 g m^{-2} . However, liquid clouds can potentially
 290 reach 30 g m^{-2} , whereas mixed-phase clouds cannot. Additionally, the monthly evolution of this parameter does not display a strong seasonal pattern for both types of clouds, consistent with their frequency of occurrence (see Figure ?? and ??). Notably, the only cloud type showing a pronounced seasonal trend is the liquid-precipitating mixed-phase clouds, indicating that precipitation in Granada is mainly associated with mixed-phase clouds. Regarding ice water content (IWC), its values are consistently greater for mixed-phase clouds, which contain the majority of ice hydrometeors in the atmosphere.

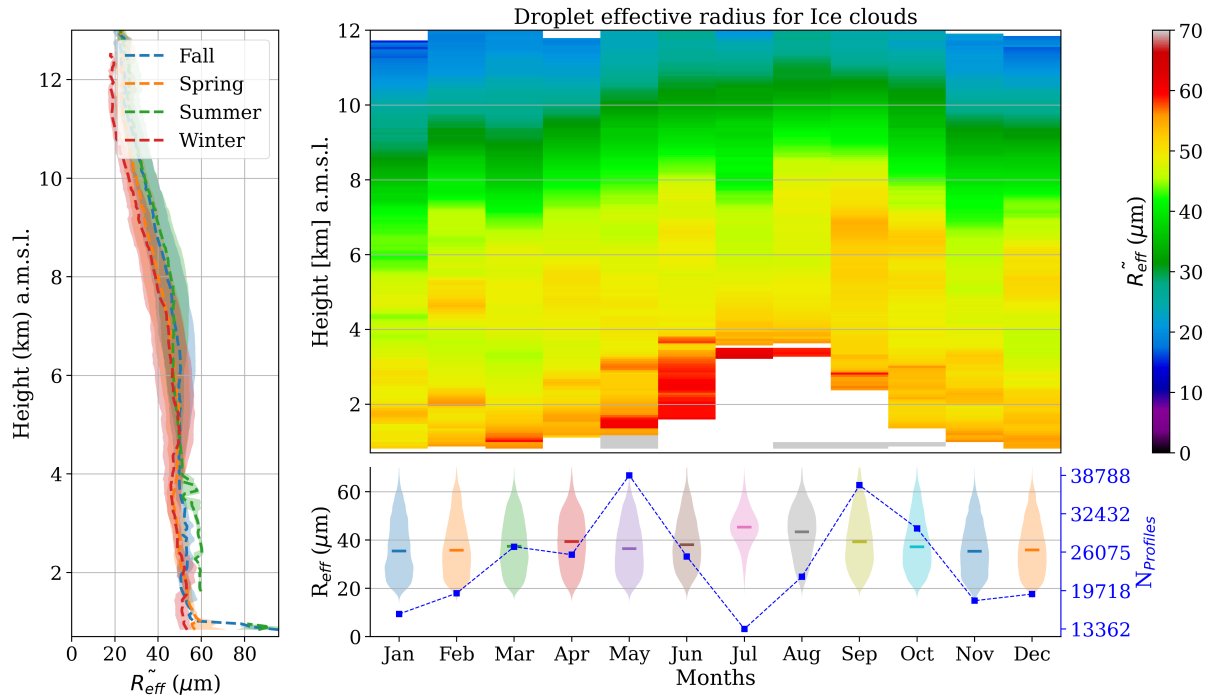


Figure 17.

295 Similarly, no significant seasonal differences in liquid water content (LWC) profiles were observed for non-precipitating clouds. However, liquid clouds predominantly exhibit LWC below 3 km, with higher values in summer, contrasting with more evenly distributed LWC values in mixed-phase clouds. The same behavior was observed for droplet effective radius, despite the fact that the radius tends to be larger for mixed-phase clouds. In terms of IWC, its values are vertically distributed for both ice and mixed-phase clouds. However, the most likely values for ice clouds are between 8 and 11 km, whereas for mixed-phase clouds, they range between 2 and 8 km. Additionally, similar behavior was found for ice effective radius. Subsequently, mixed-phase clouds exhibit greater cloud thickness compared to liquid clouds, while no discernible seasonal trend was identified for this parameter. Nevertheless, clear seasonality was observed for cloud base and top, which were higher in warmer periods and lower in colder ones, as expected. However, during summer, unusual vertical distributions were observed, with liquid clouds particularly affected, reaching altitudes of up to 5 km.

305 5 Summary and conclusions

The study of cloud coverage and its physical properties are the first step in understanding cloud radiative effects. In order to retrieve these variables, CLOUDNET post-processed data of FMCW 94 GHz cloud Doppler radar, HATPRO radiometer and CHM15k ceilometer were used. Additionally, complementary analysis of thermodynamic conditions was performed with

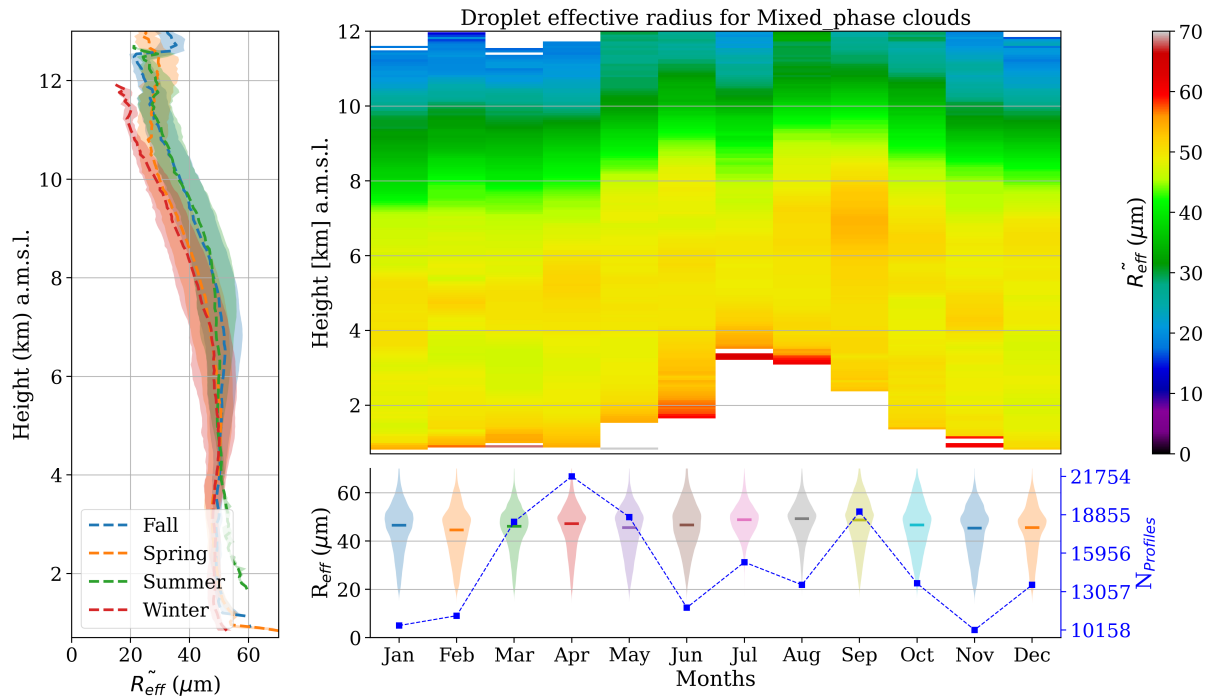


Figure 18.

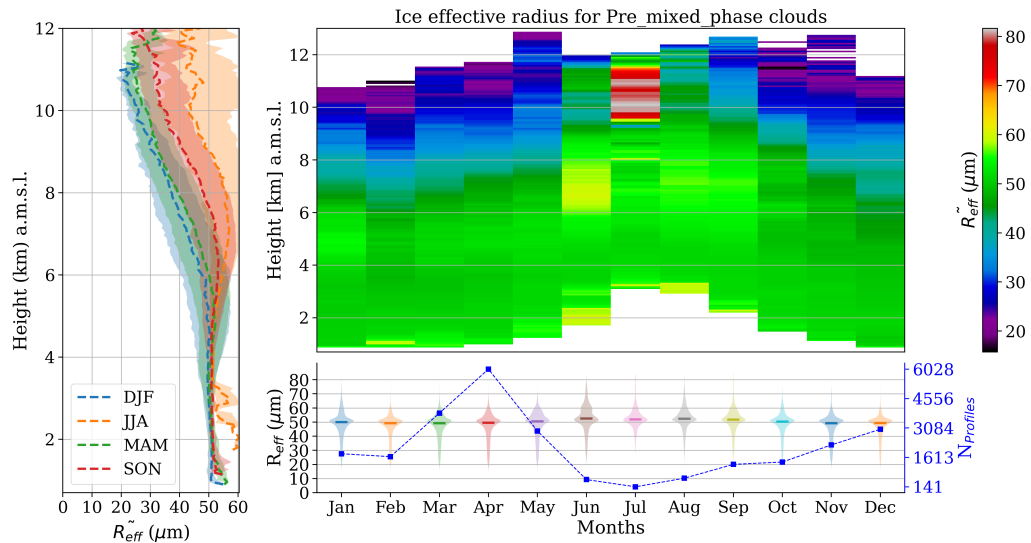


Figure 19.

the HATPRO radiometer vertical profiles. Temperature and relative humidity profiles tracked cold (fall-winter) and warm regimes (spring-summer). The assortment algorithm was applied using the CLOUDNET target classification product to classify different single layer cloud types. Inter-annual observation on cloud occurrence revealed a seasonal trend, where mixed phase clouds are the prevailing species, followed by ice clouds, especially during spring and winter. In these seasons, precipitating mixed phase clouds can reach 30%XXX and 25%XXX of frequency, respectively, and ice clouds 15%XXX and 12%XXX. Other cloud types have no strong seasonal pattern, and precipitating liquid clouds are absent throughout the year. In addition, the total single layer cloud frequency in summer is less than 8%. Mixed-phase clouds exhibit the thickest layers, followed by ice clouds and then liquid clouds. The median cloud thickness for these clouds is 2.0XXX, 1.2XXX, and 0.2XXX, respectively. However, due to their considerable variability, no distinct seasonal pattern was discernible for this property. Consequently, thicker layers of mixed-phase clouds contain more ice content than ice clouds layers. Although typical values for both are 0-20 g m⁻², mixed phase clouds have systematically higher IWP, with an expressive increase in fall, reaching 20-50 g m⁻². Conversely, liquid clouds contain slightly more liquid content than mixed-phase clouds, despite being thin. This indicates that liquid layers consistently maintain thinness, even within mixed-phase clouds. In fact, they have almost the same amount of water, within the interval of 0-20 g m⁻², but liquid clouds have higher probability to reach higher values, specially in spring and fall (see figure ??).

LWC and droplets effective radius does not show a clear seasonal trend for mixed and liquid phase clouds. Effective radius has almost the same distribution along year, with a median of 5 μm for liquid clouds, and is found mainly below 3 km. Differently mixed phase clouds have a radius that can vary a lot from the surface to 10 km, but in general, most frequent values between 5 and 12 μm are found between 1-2 km and 5-9 km. Concerning LWC, despite the fact that it was easy to identify higher values in cold regimes and smaller ones during summer, the variability of data goes through several orders of magnitude. It was observed for liquid and mixed phase clouds.

With respect to ice and mixed phase clouds, the same difficulty to reach a seasonal pattern for IWC was identified. Month profiles did not show a significant difference, except that in summer, values are shifted upwards in the atmosphere. For ice clouds, effective radius can reach 65 μm in summer, but normally they vary between 20-30 μm around 8-12 km. For mixed phase clouds, ice effective radius fluctuates around 50 μm between 1-7 km.

Concerning cloud base height, a significantly seasonal difference on vertical distribution was observed in summer. Normally, the median value of ice cloud base height is 8 kmXXX in fall and 7 kmXXX for the rest of the year. For mixed phase, median values are 4 km and 5 km in cold and warm regimes, respectively. However, an unusual mode around 5 km appeared in summer, especially for mixed phase clouds, which also present a sharper distribution compared to other seasons. Nonetheless, in this season, liquid clouds presented a spreader distribution, with a median of 3 kmXXX, against a median of 1 kmXXX in other seasons. Cloud top height followed a similar behavior. In colder regimes (winter-spring), cloud top is 1.5 kmXXX, 9 kmXXX, 6 kmXXX, for liquid, ice and mixed clouds, respectively. During warm periods (summer-fall), medians changed to 2.5 kmXXX, 8.5 kmXXX, 7.5 kmXXX. However, only in summer, the median cloud base height for liquid clouds were 3 kmXXX. Finally, a comprehensive analysis of cloud occurrence and physical properties was conducted at the ACTRIS-CCRESS Granada station. Notably, this is the first study on cloud properties in the southeast of Spain, an area recognized as

a hotspot for climate variability. Consequently, it has the potential to enhance our understanding of global cloud properties, as
345 the methods employed here can be applied to other stations as well.

Acknowledgements. TEXT

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